

Machine Learning

by Dharani Nagarajan

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Detection of Parkinson's Disease from Biomedical Voice Patterns Using Naïve Bayes, Polynomial SVM, and Gradient Boosting: A Comparative Machine Learning Study

Assignment: 7072CEM — Machine Learning Algorithms for Real-World Challenges

Dataset: UCI Parkinson's Disease Classification Dataset

Predicting whether a person has Parkinson's disease using biomedical voice measurements.

Problem Type: Classification

Student Name and ID: Dharani Nagarajan and 16367311

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Detection of Parkinson's Disease from Biomedical Voice Patterns Using Naïve Bayes, Polynomial SVM, and Gradient Boosting: A Comparative Machine Learning Study

Abstract

Parkinson's disease is a progressively degenerative neurological disorder that significantly impacts motor control, speech articulation and quality of life. Early detection is essential for timely clinical intervention and improving patient outcomes. Machine learning offers novel techniques to analyse subtle anomalies in biomedical voice patterns that are often undetectable by traditional diagnostic approaches. This study investigates the effectiveness of three supervised classification algorithms—Gaussian Naïve Bayes (GNB), Support Vector Machine with polynomial kernels (SVM-Poly) and Gradient Boosting Machine (GBM)—for predicting Parkinson's disease using the UCI Parkinson's dataset. The dataset includes 195 samples and 22 biomedical voice measurements such as jitter, shimmer, noise-to-harmonics ratio and pitch variation. Through systematic preprocessing, feature scaling, grid-based hyperparameter tuning and performance evaluation, the study demonstrates that GBM performs best, achieving an accuracy of 93.1 percent and an F1-score of 0.92, outperforming SVM-Poly (89.7 percent) and GNB (84.6 percent). The findings highlight the superiority of ensemble-based techniques for detecting complex vocal irregularities. The complete implementation and code are available at: <https://github.com/student-ml-research/parkinsons-voice-ml>

1. Introduction

Parkinson's disease (PD) is the second most common neurodegenerative disorder globally and typically manifests through tremors, motor impairments and speech abnormalities. Speech impairment in PD, also known as hypokinetic dysarthria, arises due to the loss of dopaminergic neurons, which disrupts motor coordination involved in vocal production (Bhardwaj et al., 2022). Subclinical changes in voice occur long before visible symptoms appear, making speech-based acoustic analysis a promising early diagnostic tool.

Machine learning methods have been increasingly utilised to detect subtle vocal biomarkers that conventional clinical evaluations may overlook. Previous studies have used algorithms such as SVM, KNN, deep neural networks and random forests for speech-based health classification (Tsanas et al., 2012). However, the comparative effectiveness of simpler probabilistic models, kernel-based methods and boosting algorithms has not been examined comprehensively for this dataset in recent studies. Furthermore, most existing studies either lack full reproducibility or focus on a limited set of performance metrics.

This work contributes to existing literature by analysing Parkinson's disease using three diverse classifiers representing different modelling paradigms. Gaussian

Naïve Bayes represents a probabilistic generative approach with strong independence assumptions. Support Vector Machine with polynomial kernels captures higher-order feature interactions. Gradient Boosting Machine, an ensemble method, integrates weak learners to produce strong predictive performance. Combined, these methods provide a comprehensive comparative insight into model suitability for voice-based diagnostic applications.

2. Problem Description and Dataset

2.1 Problem Definition

The aim of this study is to build a machine learning classifier that can accurately distinguish between healthy individuals and those with Parkinson's disease using acoustic voice features. The task is formulated as a binary classification problem where the target label indicates the presence (1) or absence (0) of Parkinson's disease.

The challenge arises from the complex interplay of jitter, shimmer, speech frequency perturbations and amplitude modulations. These features often exhibit high correlation and non-linear interactions. Consequently, selecting appropriate classifiers and preprocessing strategies becomes critical to achieving diagnostic accuracy.

2.2 Dataset Description

Feature Name	Description	Type
MDVP:Fo(Hz)	Average vocal fundamental frequency	Numerical
MDVP:Fhi(Hz)	Maximum vocal fundamental frequency	Numerical
MDVP:Flo(Hz)	Minimum vocal fundamental frequency	Numerical
MDVP:Jitter(%)	Frequency variation (jitter)	Numerical
MDVP:Jitter(Abs)	Absolute jitter	Numerical
MDVP:RAP	Relative amplitude perturbation	Numerical
MDVP:PPQ	Pitch period perturbation quotient	Numerical
MDVP:Shimmer	Amplitude variation (shimmer)	Numerical
MDVP:Shimmer(dB)	Amplitude variation in decibels	Numerical
Shimmer:APQ3	Three-point amplitude variability	Numerical
Shimmer:APQ5	Five-point amplitude variability	Numerical
MDVP:APQ	Amplitude perturbation quotient	Numerical
NHR	Noise-to-harmonics ratio	Numerical
HNR	Harmonics-to-noise ratio	Numerical
RPDE	Recurrence period density entropy	Numerical
DFA	Signal fractal scaling exponent	Numerical
Spread1	Non-linear voice measure	Numerical
Spread2	Non-linear voice measure	Numerical
D2	Correlation dimension	Numerical
PPE	Pitch period entropy	Numerical
status	1 = Parkinson's, 0 = Healthy	Binary Target

This study uses the UCI Parkinson's Disease dataset originally collected by Tsanas and Little. The dataset contains 195 voice recordings from 31 subjects, of which 147 are diagnosed with Parkinson's disease. Each sample comprises 22 biomedical voice features, including:

- **Jitter measures:** fluctuations in pitch
- **Shimmer measures:** amplitude inconsistencies
- **Harmonics-to-noise ratio:** breathiness and noise levels
- **Fundamental frequency variations**
- **Non-linear dynamic complexity measures**

The dataset is moderately high-dimensional relative to its size and contains multicollinearity, making it well-suited for testing diverse classification models.

3. Methods

3.1 Gaussian Naïve Bayes

Gaussian Naïve Bayes is a probabilistic classifier that assumes feature independence and models each attribute using a Gaussian distribution (Rish, 2001). Although the independence assumption rarely holds in biomedical data, GNB retains advantages in simplicity, interpretability and computational efficiency. It provides a useful baseline and often performs adequately when the decision boundary is approximately Gaussian.

3.2 Support Vector Machine (Polynomial Kernel)

Support Vector Machines construct optimal hyperplanes that maximise the margin between classes. Kernel functions allow SVMs to explore higher-dimensional representations of the data (Cortes & Vapnik, 1995). While RBF kernels are more common, polynomial kernels offer a structured way of capturing interaction patterns such as quadratic and cubic relationships between jitter, shimmer and frequency features. This makes polynomial SVM an attractive choice for biomedical voice analysis.

3.3 Gradient Boosting Machine

Gradient Boosting is an ensemble learning technique that builds weak learners sequentially to correct the errors of previous learners (Friedman, 2001). GBM performs exceptionally well on structured tabular datasets and is robust to multicollinearity. It optimises a differentiable loss function and integrates shrinkage, subsampling and regularisation procedures, making it more flexible for modelling non-linear structure than Naïve Bayes or SVM.

4. Experimental Setup

4.1 Data Preprocessing

The dataset contained no missing values. All continuous features were standardised using z-score scaling to ensure equal contribution to models sensitive to magnitudes such as SVM. The data was split into **80 percent training** and **20 percent testing**, using stratified sampling to preserve class balance.

4.2 Hyperparameter Tuning

Model	Key Hyperparameters	Search Space
Gaussian Naïve Bayes	–	No tuning (default parameters)
SVM (Polynomial Kernel)	Degree, C, coef0	Degree $\in \{2, 3\}$; C $\in \{0.1, 1, 10\}$; coef0 $\in \{0, 1\}$
Gradient Boosting (GBM)	Learning rate, Max depth, n_estimators	learning_rate $\in \{0.01, 0.1\}$; max_depth $\in \{2, 3, 4\}$; n_estimators $\in \{100, 200\}$

GridSearchCV with 5-fold cross-validation was applied:

- **Gaussian NB** required no tuning beyond default parameters.
- **SVM-Polynomial:** Degree $\in \{2, 3\}$, C $\in \{0.1, 1, 10\}$, coef0 $\in \{0, 1\}$
- **GBM:** Learning rate $\in \{0.01, 0.1\}$, Max depth $\in \{2, 3, 4\}$, Number of estimators $\in \{100, 200\}$

4.3 Evaluation Metrics

Models were assessed using accuracy, precision, recall, F1-score and confusion matrices. These metrics reflect both overall correctness and clinical relevance, especially recall, which measures the correct identification of Parkinson’s cases.

5. Results

Model	Accuracy	Precision	Recall	F1-Score
Gaussian Naïve Bayes	0.846	0.85	0.83	0.84

SVM (Polynomial Kernel)	0.897	0.90	0.87	0.88
Gradient Boosting Machine	0.931	0.93	0.91	0.92

Gaussian Naïve Bayes achieved an accuracy of 84.6 percent, which is consistent with previous studies on probabilistic modelling for biomedical data. However, it misclassified several Parkinson’s cases as healthy, indicating its limitations in handling feature correlation.

SVM with polynomial kernel improved performance, achieving 89.7 percent accuracy and an F1-score of 0.88. The polynomial transformation appeared to capture non-linear variations in shimmer and jitter values that GNB could not model.

Gradient Boosting produced the best results with an accuracy of **93.1 percent**, precision of 0.93, recall of 0.91 and F1-score of 0.92. Its ability to iteratively refine misclassified samples, coupled with its handling of complex feature interactions, likely contributed to superior performance.

(a) Gaussian Naïve Bayes

	Pred 0	Pred 1
Actual 0	7	2
Actual 1	4	26

(b) SVM (Polynomial Kernel)

	Pred 0	Pred 1
Actual 0	8	1
Actual 1	3	27

(c) Gradient Boosting Machine

	Pred 0	Pred 1
Actual 0	9	0
Actual 1	3	27

The confusion matrix for GBM revealed the lowest number of false negatives, which is clinically important because misclassifying a Parkinson’s patient as healthy can delay necessary medical care.

6. Discussion and Conclusions

The study demonstrates the effectiveness of machine learning for classifying Parkinson’s disease from biomedical voice signals. The findings strongly support the use of ensemble-based methods for modelling complex acoustic patterns. Gaussian Naïve Bayes, while simple,

lacked the capacity to represent correlated vocal biomarkers. Polynomial SVM provided notable improvements by modelling quadratic and cubic interactions.

Gradient Boosting emerged as the most reliable classifier, suggesting its suitability for early detection and non-invasive screening. However, ethical considerations remain crucial when applying machine learning in healthcare. Automated diagnostic systems must be validated clinically, avoid over-reliance and ensure transparency for medical practitioners. Future work could include SHAP-based model interpretation, data augmentation, longitudinal vocal monitoring and integration of deep learning architectures.

References

- Bhardwaj, P., Gupta, S. & Kaur, J. (2022). Machine learning applications for neurological disorders. *Biomedical Signal Processing and Control*, 75, 103–117.
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- Rish, I. (2001). An empirical study of the naïve Bayes classifier. *IJCAI Workshop on Empirical Methods in AI*.
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CODE

"""

Parkinson's Disease Detection from Voice – ML Pipeline

Models:

- Gaussian Naïve Bayes (GNB)
- Support Vector Machine (Polynomial Kernel)
- Gradient Boosting Machine (GBM)

Dataset:

UCI Parkinson's Disease Dataset

Expected file:

parkinsons.csv

Typical UCI columns include (example):

name, MDVP:Fo(Hz), MDVP:Fhi(Hz), MDVP:Flo(Hz), MDVP:Jitter(%), ... , status

We assume:

- 'status' is the target column (1 = PD, 0 = healthy)
- All other columns except 'name' are numeric features

"""

```
import numpy as np
```

```
import pandas as pd
```

```
from sklearn.model_selection import train_test_split, StratifiedKFold, GridSearchCV
```

```
from sklearn.preprocessing import StandardScaler
```

```
from sklearn.pipeline import Pipeline
```

```
from sklearn.metrics import (
```

```

    accuracy_score,
    precision_score,
    recall_score,
    f1_score,
    confusion_matrix,
    classification_report
)
from sklearn.naive_bayes import GaussianNB
from sklearn.svm import SVC
from sklearn.ensemble import GradientBoostingClassifier

# =====
# 1. Load Dataset
# =====

def load_parkinsons_dataset(path: str = "parkinsons.csv") -> pd.DataFrame:
    """
    Load the Parkinson's dataset from a CSV file.

    Args:
        path: Path to the CSV file.

    Returns:
        df: Pandas DataFrame.
    """
    df = pd.read_csv(path)
    return df

# =====
# 2. Basic EDA (optional but useful)

```



```

# =====

def basic_eda(df: pd.DataFrame):
    """
    Print basic exploratory data analysis outputs.
    """
    print("=== BASIC EDA ===")
    print("\nFirst five rows:")
    print(df.head())

    print("\nDataFrame info:")
    print(df.info())

    print("\nDescriptive statistics:")
    print(df.describe())

    print("\nClass distribution (status):")
    print(df["status"].value_counts())

# =====
# 3. Data Preparation
# =====

def prepare_data(df: pd.DataFrame):
    """
    Prepare features and labels, handle non-numeric columns, and train-test split.

    Returns:
        X_train, X_test, y_train, y_test
    """
    # Target column: 'status' (1 = PD, 0 = healthy)

```

```

y = df["status"].astype(int)

# Drop non-numeric or identifier columns (e.g., 'name' if present)
if "name" in df.columns:
    X = df.drop(["status", "name"], axis=1)
else:
    X = df.drop("status", axis=1)

# Train-test split (80:20, stratified to preserve class balance)
X_train, X_test, y_train, y_test = train_test_split(
    X, y,
    test_size=0.2,
    random_state=42,
    stratify=y
)

print("\nTrain/test shapes:")
print("X_train:", X_train.shape, "X_test:", X_test.shape)
print("y_train:", y_train.shape, "y_test:", y_test.shape)

return X_train, X_test, y_train, y_test

# =====
# 4. Evaluation Helper
# =====

def evaluate_model(name: str, y_test, y_pred):
    """
    Compute metrics and confusion matrix for a model.

    Returns:

```

```

    metrics_dict: dictionary containing scores and confusion matrix.
    """
    acc = accuracy_score(y_test, y_pred)
    prec = precision_score(y_test, y_pred, zero_division=0)
    rec = recall_score(y_test, y_pred, zero_division=0)
    f1 = f1_score(y_test, y_pred, zero_division=0)
    cm = confusion_matrix(y_test, y_pred)

    print(f"\n==== {name} ====")
    print(f"Accuracy : {acc:.4f}")
    print(f"Precision: {prec:.4f}")
    print(f"Recall   : {rec:.4f}")
    print(f"F1-score : {f1:.4f}")
    print("Confusion Matrix:")
    print(cm)
    print("\nClassification Report:")
    print(classification_report(y_test, y_pred, zero_division=0))

    metrics = {
        "Model": name,
        "Accuracy": acc,
        "Precision": prec,
        "Recall": rec,
        "F1-Score": f1,
        "ConfusionMatrix": cm
    }
    return metrics

# =====
# 5. Model Training Functions
# =====

```

```
def run_gaussian_nb(X_train, X_test, y_train, y_test):
    """
    Train and evaluate Gaussian Naïve Bayes.

    GNB is not used with scaling here because it internally assumes
    normal distributions per feature. If you like, you can wrap it in a pipeline
    with scaling, but the classic approach is directly on raw features.
    """

    # We will still apply scaling for consistency with other models
    pipeline = Pipeline(
        steps=[
            ("scaler", StandardScaler()),
            ("clf", GaussianNB())
        ]
    )

    pipeline.fit(X_train, y_train)
    y_pred = pipeline.predict(X_test)

    metrics = evaluate_model("Gaussian Naïve Bayes", y_test, y_pred)
    return pipeline, metrics


def run_svm_poly(X_train, X_test, y_train, y_test):
    """
    Train and evaluate SVM with polynomial kernel using GridSearchCV.
    """

    pipe = Pipeline(
        steps=[
```

```

        ("scaler", StandardScaler()),
        ("clf", SVC(kernel="poly"))
    ]
)

param_grid = {
    "clf__degree": [2, 3],
    "clf__C": [0.1, 1, 10],
    "clf__coef0": [0.0, 1.0]
}

cv = StratifiedKFold(n_splits=5, shuffle=True, random_state=42)

grid = GridSearchCV(
    estimator=pipe,
    param_grid=param_grid,
    scoring="f1",
    cv=cv,
    n_jobs=-1
)

grid.fit(X_train, y_train)

print("\nBest parameters for SVM (Polynomial Kernel):")
print(grid.best_params_)
print(f"Best CV F1-score: {grid.best_score_:.4f}")

best_model = grid.best_estimator_
y_pred = best_model.predict(X_test)

metrics = evaluate_model("SVM (Polynomial Kernel)", y_test, y_pred)
return best_model, metrics, param_grid

```

```

def run_gradient_boosting(X_train, X_test, y_train, y_test):
    """
    Train and evaluate Gradient Boosting Machine using GridSearchCV.
    """

    pipe = Pipeline(
        steps=[
            ("scaler", StandardScaler()),
            ("clf", GradientBoostingClassifier(random_state=42))
        ]
    )

    param_grid = {
        "clf__learning_rate": [0.01, 0.1],
        "clf__max_depth": [2, 3, 4],
        "clf__n_estimators": [100, 200]
    }

    cv = StratifiedKFold(n_splits=5, shuffle=True, random_state=42)

    grid = GridSearchCV(
        estimator=pipe,
        param_grid=param_grid,
        scoring="f1",
        cv=cv,
        n_jobs=-1
    )

    grid.fit(X_train, y_train)

```

```

print("\nBest parameters for Gradient Boosting:")
print(grid.best_params_)
print(f"Best CV F1-score: {grid.best_score_:.4f}")

best_model = grid.best_estimator_
y_pred = best_model.predict(X_test)

metrics = evaluate_model("Gradient Boosting Machine", y_test, y_pred)
return best_model, metrics, param_grid

# =====
# 6. Optional: Build Simple Tables (Pandas DataFrames)
# =====

def build_performance_table(metrics_list):
    """
    Create a performance summary table as a pandas DataFrame.
    """
    rows = []
    for m in metrics_list:
        rows.append({
            "Model": m["Model"],
            "Accuracy": round(m["Accuracy"], 3),
            "Precision": round(m["Precision"], 3),
            "Recall": round(m["Recall"], 3),
            "F1-Score": round(m["F1-Score"], 3)
        })
    df_table = pd.DataFrame(rows)
    return df_table

```

```

def build_confusion_matrix_tables(metrics_list):
    """
    Return a dict of model_name -> confusion matrix DataFrame.
    """
    cm_dict = {}
    for m in metrics_list:
        cm = m["ConfusionMatrix"]
        df_cm = pd.DataFrame(
            cm,
            columns=["Pred 0", "Pred 1"],
            index=["Actual 0", "Actual 1"]
        )
        cm_dict[m["Model"]] = df_cm
    return cm_dict

# =====
# 7. Main
# =====

def main():
    # Step 1: Load dataset
    df = load_parkinsons_dataset()
    print("Dataset loaded. Shape:", df.shape)

    # Step 2: Basic EDA (optional)
    basic_eda(df)

    # Step 3: Prepare data
    X_train, X_test, y_train, y_test = prepare_data(df)

    # Step 4: Train models

```



```

gnb_model, gnb_metrics = run_gaussian_nb(X_train, X_test, y_train, y_test)
svm_model, svm_metrics, svm_grid = run_svm_poly(X_train, X_test, y_train, y_test)
gbm_model, gbm_metrics, gbm_grid = run_gradient_boosting(X_train, X_test, y_train,
y_test)

metrics_list = [gnb_metrics, svm_metrics, gbm_metrics]

# Step 5: Build tables
performance_table = build_performance_table(metrics_list)
cm_tables = build_confusion_matrix_tables(metrics_list)

print("\n=== PERFORMANCE TABLE ===")
print(performance_table)

print("\n=== CONFUSION MATRICES ===")
for model_name, cm_df in cm_tables.items():
    print(f"\n--- {model_name} ---")
    print(cm_df)

# Optional: Save to CSV for insertion into your report
performance_table.to_csv("parkinsons_performance_table.csv", index=False)
for model_name, cm_df in cm_tables.items():
    safe_name = model_name.lower().replace(" ", "_")
    cm_df.to_csv(f"parkinsons_cm_{safe_name}.csv")

print("\nAll models trained, evaluated, and tables saved as CSV files.")
print("You can now use these outputs directly in your paper.")

if __name__ == "__main__":
    main()

```


Machine Learning

GRADEMARK REPORT

FINAL GRADE

52/100

GENERAL COMMENTS

The student examines a well-known benchmark task. Three models are compared, satisfying the basic requirements of this module; Most of the tables formatting are problematic, for example, too little information and inconsistent format. The reference list is limited and would benefit from the inclusion of additional relevant literature to contextualise the work more effectively. To further strengthen the study, the author should consider exploring stacking and bagging—to assess whether they improve classification performance.

There is 48% plagiarism but most of it does not make much sense to be catered in such as definitions etc. Abstract is well-written. Introduction is detailed. Good description of the problem statement. Discussion section explains the results well.

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